

Advanced multi-lingual writers' self-directed use of generative AI in academic writing: Rethinking writing, authorship, and learning

Chaoran Wang^{1,*} , Wei Xu², and Xiao Tan³ 

¹Department of Writing, Colby College, 5290 Mayflower Hill, Waterville, ME 04901, United States

²Department of English, Northern Illinois University, DeKalb, IL 60115, United States

³Department of English, Utah State University, Logan, UT 84322, United States

*Corresponding author. Chaoran Wang, Department of Writing, Colby College, 5290 Mayflower Hill, Waterville, Maine 04901, USA. E-mail: chaowang@colby.edu

This study explores the self-directed use of Generative AI (GenAI) in academic writing among advanced L2/multi-lingual English writers, challenging the assumption that GenAI undermines meaningful learning. Through case studies, we investigate how three (post)doctoral writers engage with GenAI to address specific L2 writing challenges. The findings revealed a spectrum of approaches to GenAI, ranging from prescriptive to dialogic uses, with participants positioning AI as a tool versus an interactive participant in their meaning-making process, reflecting different views of AI as a mechanical system, social construct, or distributed agency. We highlight the ways AI disrupts traditional notions of authorship, text, and learning, showing how a post-structuralist lens allows us to transcend human-AI, writing-technology, and learning-bypassing binaries in our existing discourses on AI. This shifting view allows us to deconstruct and reconstruct AI's multi-faceted possibilities in writers' literacy practices. We also call for more nuanced ethical considerations to avoid stigmatizing multi-lingual writers' use of GenAI and to foster writerly virtues that reposition our relationship with AI technology.

Introduction

In a post-digital world where a nexus of artificial intelligence, algorithms, and hybrid spaces are mediating writers' literacy experiences, new challenges and opportunities arise in academic writing. Generative AI (GenAI) technologies open new avenues for multi-lingual writers to seek assistance with easy access, yet gaps in understanding these writing practices persist, partly due to the largely self-directed nature in which GenAI was used. A survey published in *Nature* highlights this trend, revealing that early career scholars in social sciences and engineering often rely on self-taught, self-regulated approaches when using GenAI in their work (Nordling 2023). However, AI usage remains highly controversial in high-stakes academic writing. While some writers worry that the disclosure of AI usage may carry potential risks, if not, at least ambiguous negative connotations regarding their academic rigor and integrity, others opt to use AI without disclosure (Conroy 2023). Empirical

evidence has shown potential biases against writers when they disclose the use of GenAI, raising concerns about the effectiveness and equity regarding current AI policies (Tan et al. 2025).

The conundrum highlights the urgency of deepening our understanding of the specific ways multi-lingual academic writers self-direct their use of GenAI to shed light on the evolving relationship between writing, AI technology, authorship, and learning. We undertook the current study to explore three cases of advanced L2 English writers' self-directed AI-assisted writing within their disciplinary practices. We begin by reviewing current scholarship on GenAI use in academic writing, focusing on major concerns and debates relevant to multi-lingual writers. We then introduce post-structuralist and spatial theories in language studies, along with the concept of self-directed learning, which inform our analysis of participants' AI-assisted writing. Following a description of the methodology and findings, we unpack how these AI-mediated meaning-making processes offer insights into authorship, learning, and ethical considerations for multi-lingual writers.

We argue that AI-assisted writing is not a monolithic practice; rather, it reflects writers' distinct positionalities toward AI and their writerly habitus, shaped by their disciplinary writing practices and broader ideologies about language and literacy in their academic work. Given the destabilized boundaries between human and machine in AI-mediated writing, we propose reconsidering authorship as a distributed and relational practice, one that embraces the fluid and emergent nature of meaning-making within a semiotic ecology of human and non-human agents. Beyond authorship, AI-assisted writing also necessitates a shift in how learning and writing development should be reconceptualized. Rather than viewing AI use as either a shortcut or a threat to foundational writing skills, we call for recognizing AI as an integral component of rhetorical and digital literacy, particularly for multi-lingual writers to navigate complex linguistic norms and standardized language ideologies. Finally, we argue that deficit-oriented and surveillance-driven discourse surrounding AI use fails to account for the complexities of AI-assisted literacy practices and the ethical tensions multi-lingual writers face when disclosing their AI use. We call for more nuanced ethical considerations to avoid stigmatizing multi-lingual writers' use of GenAI and to foster writerly virtues that reposition our relationship with AI technology.

Literature review

GenAI in academic writing practices

GenAI is increasingly influencing academic writing practices and has become part of writers' evolving academic repertoire for competence and communication (Ou et al. 2024; Wang et al. 2024). Optimists suggest that large language models (LLMs) could act as democratizing agents for L2 scholars in the English-dominant academic writing and publishing, as well as disrupt existing linguistic hierarchies in language education (Dovchin 2025). Hwang et al. (2023) argued that LLMs could "lower the barrier to academic writing in English" (p. 952), while Giglio and Costa (2023) believed that AI has the potential to support L2 writers and reduce inequalities between them with native-speaking researchers. In a review of 24 studies on AI's impact on academic writing and research, Khalifa and Albadawy (2024) position AI as a "productivity tool" that revolutionizes academic writing by supporting researchers in various dimensions of their work, including idea generation, content structuring, literature synthesis, data management and analysis, editing and publishing, and communication and outreach.

However, such involvement of GenAI in writing introduces concerns regarding knowledge production and possible learning loss for multi-lingual writers. Floridi (2023) described AI as "agency without intelligence," contending that "we have decoupled the ability to act successfully from the need to be intelligent, understand, reflect, and consider anything" (p. 5). This critique is particularly pertinent to educational institutions, where writing has long been central to both demonstrating and evaluating students' disciplinary learning and knowledge. Similar apprehensions appeared in scholarly writing where writing and publishing also serve as a primary metric of one's intellectual contribution and scholarly authority. Academic genres, in this sense, have

been functioning as an institution that affirms one's legitimate membership within the academic community by textualizing its established way of thinking and articulating. As scholars decried the "death" of essays as an effective way to assess learning and the potential of AI for students to "avoid education" (Gefen and Arinze 2023), reviewers, editors, and other stakeholders in academic communities cautioned that involving GenAI in academic knowledge creation and dissemination may risk low-quality writing, problematic research process, and even fake science (e.g. Kim et al. 2024).

These negative connotations around AI use make academic writers wary of openly sharing their AI-assisted writing experiences, as they worry it may undermine their credibility, ethics, and academic rigor (Conroy 2023; Wang et al. 2024). The hesitance is echoed in Warschauer et al.'s (2023) assertion that GenAI amplifies the risk of writers, particularly multi-lingual writers, being accused of plagiarism when incorporating AI-generated text—a bias further compounded by AI detection tools that often exhibit prejudices against multi-lingual writers (Liang et al. 2023). This points to broader issues regarding fairness in the academic evaluation of AI-assisted writing and how a lack of understanding of AI-assisted multi-lingual writing practices may reinforce existing stigmas about multi-lingual writers (Pecorari and Petric 2014).

While concerns about GenAI's role in academic writing and knowledge production persist, another issue emerges regarding the potential impact of GenAI on writing voice and linguistic diversity (Kuteeva and Andersson 2024; Wang 2024). Academic writing has historically privileged Western epistemologies, Western rhetorics, and standardized linguistic norms. Dovchin (2025) cautioned against the "recolonial perils of AI," as it draws on global sources without acknowledging and respecting local cultural contexts (p. 3). The integration of GenAI and LLMs into the writing process may further reinforce this homogenization by reproducing and promoting the language patterns on which these models are trained—typically based on dominant, standardized forms of English and embedded with various cultural, racial, and linguistic biases. The "whiteness" of AI (Cave and Dihal 2020) urges us to consider how using GenAI as part of academic writing practice could affect our language choices, leading to less diverse and more predictable linguistic patterns. Incorporating AI-generated language may diminish multi-lingual writers' distinctive style and voice while depriving them of opportunities for introspective engagement with their trans-lingual resources and creative expressions. This poses threats to both knowledge creation and language diversity.

Conceptual background

In this study, we engage with several concepts to examine AI-assisted multi-lingual writing. We first draw upon the concept of spatial repertoires, which has a lineage in post-structuralist orientation toward language and language practices. Proposing it as "an alternative to *grammar* in analyzing meaning making and communicative success [emphasis added]," Canagarajah (2018) defines spatial repertoires as "all possible semiotized resources...may not be brought already to the activity by the individual but assembled *in situ*, and in collaboration with others, in the manner of distributed practice" (p. 37). It is important to note that Canagarajah's critique of grammar extends beyond the structured relationships within language as in Saussurean terms or the Chomskyan focus on grammar as a cognitive system and competence; rather, it concerns broader theoretical and methodological orientations rooted in structuralist linguistics traditions that set apart languages as bounded, autonomous, and self-sustained systems—such as named languages, different modalities, and presumed hierarchical divisions between modalities and languages. Spatializing semiotic resources means treating linguistic and non-linguistic semiotic resources as equal, and viewing them as emergent, situated, interdependent, synergistic, and ecological in meaning making (Canagarajah 2018). Furthermore, a spatial orientation not only moves beyond a fluid and expansive view of semiotic resources but also liberates space and materiality from the control of the human mind, acknowledging their agentive role in shaping human meaning makers.

Canagarajah's (2023) discussion of "becoming" in decolonial pedagogy further complements this spatial perspective by emphasizing the unfinished and embodied nature of knowing in

Southern epistemologies. Dominant pedagogies that prioritize structures, reason, distilled patterns, and disembodied knowledge foreground an empiricist and banking model of education, waiting for knowledge to be tested, validated, and made transferable from teachers to students; hence they always lag behind what students encounter in a perfectly messy, unpredictable, and ever-present world (Freire 1970; Canagarajah 2023). The notion of becoming resists essentialized subjectivities, highlighting how a situated practice of learning creates emergent spaces for engaging with different epistemologies and linguistic, social, material, and spatial resources, cultivating relational forms of knowing and being. From this perspective, spatial repertoires are not simply tools for communication; they are integral to processes of becoming, enabling evolving identities, agency, resistance, and adaptation to uncertainties. This intersection also raises pedagogical implications. If spatial repertoires shape becoming, then educators must provide learning environments that allow for fluid, de-hierarchical semiotizing engagements with diverse resources for learners to assemble, negotiate, and repurpose meaning across contexts in adaptive and agentive ways. As such, the integration of spatial repertoire and notion of becoming offers a post-structuralist reimagining of language, communication, and pedagogy to embrace fluid, relational, and emergent ways of meaning-making.

Now we turn to the concept of self-directed learning (SDL), which has been widely researched over the past decades, grounded in the premise that everyone is fundamentally a lifelong learner. Digital technologies have become an integral part of our lives, mediating self-directed experiences of literacy and learning practices. Meanwhile, learning how to learn with evolving digital technologies *per se*—a process of developing digital literacy and skills—is also a crucial aspect of SDL.

Extensive research has suggested that self-direction is a critical quality in leveraging technology for personal growth and learning (Li and Bonk 2023). Garrison's (1997) seminal work conceptualizes SDL as "an approach where learners are motivated to assume personal responsibility and collaborative control of cognitive (self-monitoring) and contextual (self-management) processes in constructing and confirming meaningful and worthwhile learning outcomes" (p. 18). Song and Hill (2007) noted that while Garrison's (1997) model emphasized SDL as both a personal attribute and a process involving resource management and learning strategies, it did not give sufficient attention to the influence of contextual factors. Underscoring the importance of context in SDL, Song and Hill reframed the model into three key constructs: (1) personal attribute such as motivation, resource and strategy use, and learners' prior knowledge and experience, (2) autonomous process which involves planning, monitoring, and evaluating, and (3) contextual factors that focus on the design elements, the learning context, and support elements (e.g. peers and instructors) that may impact learners' SDL.

Considering the growing adoption of GenAI in language learning, Li et al. (2024, 2025) expanded upon Song and Hill's (2007) model and proposed an AI-assisted SDL framework based on their research on global language teachers and learners. Li et al. (2024) identified key personal attributes that may influence a learner's self-directed use of AI, including their attitude toward AI technology, self-efficacy beliefs about their competence to use AI, motivation, and the use of resources and strategies. They modified the autonomous process into an autonomous-adaptive process, highlighting that working with GenAI demands adaptability to continually adjust and refine one's use in response to AI's outputs as well as its fast-evolving nature and the potential advancement of its computational agency (Li et al. 2024). In the third component, contextual factors, they pointed out the key design elements that shaped GenAI, such as training data, algorithms, and the AI interface. They also emphasized the complexity of social elements in AI-assisted SDL, which span multiple levels, such as institutional policy on AI adoption, social justice considerations, ethical considerations, and cultural and geopolitical norms.

Today's multi-lingual writers are exposed to a variety of AI technologies outside formal educational settings and are increasingly engaged in self-directing their learning and literacy practices with these technologies. GenAI's language affordances and its personalized, self-paced, and interactive nature offer unique opportunities for SDL. It also extends beyond linguistic assistance and has been found to be involved in writers' various components of writing and research, such as

sourcing information, summarizing literature, and preparing manuscripts (e.g. Nordling 2023; Li et al. 2024). These practices complicate the traditional human authoring process and may risk potential encroachment on knowledge creation and expression of an authentic writing voice. Such complexities need to be examined in light of multi-lingual writers' specific writing practices given their writing contexts, purpose, and audiences.

We undertook the current study to explore advanced multi-lingual writers' self-directed use of GenAI by focusing on three doctoral and post-doctoral L2 English writers from different disciplines. While many studies have explored multi-lingual students' use of AI in formal educational contexts, there has been less research on the self-directed GenAI use in multi-lingual scholars' academic work. In this study, we draw upon the concept of SDL, which allows us to consider the various factors that may shape multi-lingual writers' AI-assisted academic writing given their personal experiences, goals, and contexts. We also adopt a post-structuralist orientation to language to understand how AI, as part of multi-lingual writers' evolving repertoires, plays a role in their literacy practices. As such, we ground our study in the social and situated nature of AI-assisted writing, meaning it goes beyond improving one's writing products and entails navigating evolving technologies as part of one's rhetorical and writing repertoire throughout one's lifelong learning journey. The central questions guiding our inquiry are: How did advanced multi-lingual writers self-direct their use of GenAI technology for academic writing? What factors shaped the multi-lingual writers' self-directed use of GenAI for academic writing? By exploring these questions, we aim to shed light on the role of GenAI in L2 junior scholars' academic literacies and provide implications for L2 academic writing.

Methods

To trace participants' writing practices and provide a comprehensive understanding, we adopt a multiple-case study approach (Prior 1995). A multiple case study design helps understand a phenomenon through highly contextualized illustrations of the experiences of multiple cases by in-depth drawing on more than one data source (Negretti and Khuder 2023). Hence, it allows us to capture the complex and varied ways in which multi-lingual writers engage with AI, providing a contextualized understanding of their practices within their own rhetorical contexts and disciplines. This is essential for revealing the nuances of SDL with AI, which may vary from one individual to another. On the other hand, we also acknowledge that because all three participants share the same L1 and a similar educational background, their practices of using AI in writing may not represent multi-lingual writers of different linguistic and cultural backgrounds.

Participants

Our participants are three multi-lingual Chinese writers currently studying or working in the USA. Due to the high-stakes nature of academic research writing, the sensitivity surrounding GenAI use in academic work, and concerns about protecting the participants' identities, we chose to eliminate detailed information about the participants' backgrounds such as their institutions and specific research disciplines and topics. We chose the participants based on convenience and purposeful sampling, aiming to include multi-lingual scholars from diverse disciplines with varying experience and backgrounds in academic English writing. The authors identify as multi-lingual scholars whose L1 is Chinese and who share similar educational experiences, including pursuing PhD degrees and working in the North American context. The shared background allowed the researchers to employ a convenience sampling approach and gain insider perspectives into participants' experiences, while also facilitating the translation of some of the data into Chinese. Nonetheless, we also acknowledge that our professional training as writing teachers and scholars may have shaped our analytical perspectives and impacted the extent to which participants were willing to share certain information.

Table 1. A summary of participants’ professional information, education and publication experiences, and disciplines.

Name	Professional information	Educational background	Publication experiences	Discipline
Mei	Assistant Professor at a private institution in the Eastern US	Received undergraduate and master’s degrees in China Received a PhD degree in the US	Published several articles in major journals in her field Currently working on a book project developed from her dissertation study for her tenure case	Humanities
Daniel	PhD student at a large public research institution in the midwestern US	Completed undergraduate and master’s degrees in the US Taking the last course for his PhD program during the study. The course was outside his discipline but he wanted to explore it.	Had not yet published peer-reviewed articles, but had independently conducted research and written many research papers from his coursework	Social Sciences
Alex	Post-doctoral fellow working as a data scientist in a public sector in the western US	Received undergraduate and master’s degrees in China Recently graduated from his PhD program	Began to publish in his field before coming to the USA, mostly in his L1 Prolific in English publications in peer-reviewed STEM journals	STEM

All of the participants engaged with AI tools for a range of academic purposes and genres on a regular basis. Table 1 summarizes the participants’ professional information, educational backgrounds, publication experiences, and their disciplinary contexts.

Data collection and analysis

Over a 4-month period from February 2024 to May 2024, we collected data including participants’ AI chat history, written drafts, and transcripts of process-tracing interviews (Prior 2004). All three participants primarily used ChatGPT in academic writing, and they shared their AI chat history with us. Process-tracing interviews were used to capture the processes, strategies, and decisions that participants made while working on their writing projects. Data were collected through bi-weekly research interviews with each participant. The interviews were conducted bilingually and the research team collaboratively translated the Chinese transcripts into English to ensure accuracy. During each interview, the participant shared: (1) any writing tasks they had worked on during the period, (2) any AI usage logs and written drafts they were willing to provide, and (3) descriptions of their AI use process, goals, feelings, experiences, and reflections on using GenAI for academic writing. Each process-tracing interview varied in length, depending on how much writing the participant shared during the 2-week period. The data collection yielded 156 pages of AI logs, 405 minutes of interview recordings, and 76 pages of written drafts.

The data analysis included protocol coding. To answer the research questions, a coding scheme with elements from Garrison’s (1997) and Li et al.’s (2024) SDL frameworks was developed and used to guide the protocol coding of the interview data. After coding the interview data, we triangulated our analysis with other data sources to strengthen the findings. To minimize researcher bias and enhance the trustworthiness of the study, we conducted member checks with the participants to confirm the accuracy of the data and interpretations.

Findings

In this section, we unpack each participant's self-directed use of GenAI in their writing practices, showing their specific approaches and the contextual factors shaping their AI usage for academic writing.

Mei

Mei's entering motivation for engaging with GenAI was to address challenges in articulating her ideas in writing. She viewed AI as a helpful "stimulus" that allowed her to find the "right words to express myself." She typically began by organizing her thoughts in ways that felt close to what she wanted to express, describing it as "writing my string of thoughts into very poor English" that "only" she could understand. Then, she would attempt her prompts in two ways: by asking ChatGPT if it understood her input and having it rephrase her ideas in its own terms, or by asking ChatGPT to "edit to enhance clarity." She evaluated the AI's outputs by gauging whether there were misunderstandings between her intended meaning and ChatGPT's interpretation. When sensing a discrepancy, she would continue the conversation, clarifying what she really meant. Mei acknowledged that evaluating ChatGPT's wording often prompted her to reflect on her own argument and its linguistic representations: "Is this what I actually want to express?" "Why did AI use this word to represent what I just said?" While centered around linguistic accuracy, Mei's use of AI went beyond one-way, mechanical editing. Describing the process as "communicating with AI," Mei's approach features a heuristic of meaning co-construction with AI through fine-tuning its outputs to achieve mutual understanding.

Mei's self-directed use of AI also involved adapting to its limitations and adjusting her learning strategies accordingly. For instance, when AI altered her sentence to the point that it no longer "sounded human," she would revise her prompt, specifying, "edit it but keep my language as much as possible." Even when AI failed to capture her meaning and she struggled to articulate it through a prompt, Mei would still review AI's outputs to seek potential linguistic inspiration. As she noted: "Sometimes, in a whole paragraph it generates, there might be one word that stands out to me, and I think, this word is good, this word is useful, so I take that word and use it."

Table 1 shows an example of a paragraph from her first draft, her AI prompt, the AI's edits, and the final version. As a description of her book project, she felt the first draft of her paragraph was "quite plain," thus prompting AI to make it more "tempting." Mei evaluated the AI edits as "废话文学 [verbose writing]" and "purple prose" due to the unnecessary expanded length and "花里胡哨 [flowery]" wording, but acknowledged that they were "indeed more exciting" than her original version. While discarding most of AI's edits, she noted liking the phrase "shifting the lens from Y to the vibrant..." because, unlike her original wording, "contrary to viewing X as Y," the new phrasing suggests a more nuanced shift from the norm rather than a direct opposition. She also noted that in the argument sentence, the phrasing of the relationship between A, B, and C (underlined in Table 2) was refined for more clarity and conciseness. In her final edit of the argument sentence, she transferred the AI wording "vibrant" from the other sentence to replace "rich," rewrote the adverbial clause starting with "contrary to," and accepted AI's syntactic simplification. These changes allowed her to more effectively achieve her rhetorical purpose of making the writing more active and compelling. Mei regarded this process of critiquing, drawing inspiration from, and adapting AI's lexicon and syntax as a learning experience.

Design elements shaped Mei's perception and use of AI. Viewing GenAI as "just a language model," Mei believed its greatest strength lay in its ability to "put things into language," leading her to treat it as a linguistic resource. She further explained why AI was effective for language-related tasks:

It's not that I don't know a particular word, but I just can't recall it at the moment—I can't pull it from my brain's database. My thinking is more point-to-point, connecting a few things, while AI's thinking is more networked, drawing from a much larger database.

Table 2. An example showing Mei’s pre- and post-AI edits.

Mei’s first draft	[Three sentences outlining her book’s topic, goal, and methodology.] Contrary to viewing X as Y, the study reveals that it was the crosscutting interactions between A and B, A and C, and among A within the system that [the argument].
Mei’s AI prompt	Can you make this book description more tempting?
ChatGPT’s edits	[Four sentences outlining her book’s topic, goal, and methodology, the length of which is as twice as the original.] This groundbreaking book project offers a fresh perspective, shifting the lens from Y to the “vibrant” tapestry of human inter-actions within it. Prepare to be captivated as the narrative unfolds, revealing the rich “interplay between A, B, and C” that ... [Two more sentences on the argument.]
Mei’s final version	[Three sentences outlining her book’s topic, goal, and methodology, without any change from the first draft.] Going beyond a conventional depiction of X as Y, the study shed light on the “vibrant interplay between A, B, and C” that [the argument]. (Note: the wording was slightly changed to avoid online tracing.)

Because of AI’s language processing capabilities, Mei believed it could “represent the perspective of a reader,” interpreting her writing in ways that might resemble a reader’s understanding. Thus, she saw this as an opportunity to use AI to identify the ambiguity in her writing and improve clarity.

Mei’s metacognitive awareness as a writer in relation to social factors confronted her with ethical dilemmas. She mentioned that while writing in her office, she kept ChatGPT open, but always minimized the window to prevent her colleagues and students from seeing it. She attributed the attempt to conceal her AI-assisted academic work to the “stigma” surrounding using AI in academic literacy practices, describing it as “using AI makes the work seem unoriginal or gives the impression of being less original.” One particular experience that reinforced her sense of the “stigma” came from a pedagogy workshop at her school, during which her colleagues expressed “hostility” toward AI use in student writing. Mei defended herself and other students against what she perceived as the faculty’s one-size-fits-all, extreme stance on AI: “We’re not using ChatGPT to write the whole thing; we only consult it when we encounter ideas hard to express and go back and forth with it. But they [colleagues] were very resolute. They were firmly against using AI for editing or assisting with thinking.” This experience left Mei feeling “concerned” and “afraid” to share her use of AI with colleagues, worrying if others would perceive her work differently.

Recognizing the conflict between her own ethical beliefs and those of others, Mei chose to keep her use of AI not only self-directed but also private. Over the span of the study, as she gained deeper metacognitive insights into her use of AI, her beliefs were strengthened, making her feel less “afraid” of social judgments:

I’ve realized that I’m not as afraid as I used to be. On one hand, I know that some people will certainly think that way. On the other hand, I feel less insecure because I know how I use AI, and I know that my ideas are original. Unless someone could profoundly convince me otherwise—like if someone managed to convince me that my interaction with AI wasn’t part of my thinking. They would have to make me believe that only ideas originating entirely from my own mind count as my thinking, and that my back-and-forth dialogue with AI doesn’t count. Unless they can overturn my understanding, I believe this is justifiable.

However, Mei recognized that this external skepticism about work ethic and integrity, over time, also sparked other internalized concerns about her own abilities as a writer. She began to question whether using AI assistance discredited her writing ability and her capacity to “manage on my own,” a quality she believed one should possess as an experienced academic writer. She used

words such as “shortcomings,” “weakness,” “deficiency,” and “lack of fundamental ability” to describe her need to use AI for language assistance, showing how a binary positioning between her language competence and the AI-generated language resources she engaged with emerged within a professional discourse critical of AI.

Mei’s primary goal in AI-assisted writing was to achieve clarity, accuracy, and linguistic richness, which she identified as an important quality in writing in her discipline. As she explained, “In our field, the primary quality is clarity. I want to express my ideas clearly and have others understand them as intended. I don’t want readers to be confused about any meaning.” As a humanities scholar, Mei was particularly mindful of how language, even down to a single word, could shape her writerly image and voice. She used her disciplinary and rhetorical knowledge to guide her judgment in applying AI, as she exemplified: “highly formal and official language can be appropriate at times, but sometimes it feels out of place. So the judgment of whether to use a word such as ‘embark on’ or ‘start’ is based on having a clear understanding of what I want.” The process of recursive interaction with GenAI allowed her to mobilize and orchestrate the linguistic resources from both herself and the LLM, collaborating in the ongoing and emergent refinement of meaning. Mei acknowledged that the clarity AI helped her achieve enabled her to better “present my voice” in her academic writing.

Daniel

Daniel’s entering motivation to use AI came from his concern about being “not capable of” addressing certain writing tasks. He used GenAI extensively throughout his writing processes, such as refining his research scope, organizing and presenting results, interpreting data, and writing academic reports. He described his writing process with ChatGPT as follows:

Previously, I would write a sentence or a paragraph, think it over, and revise it to make sure it was appropriate. Now I just throw everything I want to say at GPT without worrying about grammar. I let it handle the grammar and then review the output. If it conveys my intended meaning, I copy and paste it. If the revision isn’t exactly what I want, I make further adjustments based on what GPT provided. Then if the changes are what I want, I use it directly; if not, I keep modifying it.

As this quote shows, in both non-AI and AI-assisted writing, Daniel employed various cognitive strategies such as monitoring, evaluating, and adapting. Yet, by relinquishing some of his cognitive effort to AI, Daniel shifted from being the craftsman of a text to also assuming a role of mediating AI. In this role, AI acted as a proxy to assist in constructing the building blocks of his text, while he monitored, adapted, and directed the AI’s outputs to fit into his overall vision. Daniel actively engaged in this reorientation of cognitive strategies to his interaction with AI, where he constantly negotiated meaning. This is evident in his prompting process: When Daniel identified inaccuracies in ChatGPT’s outputs, he pointed them out: “No! I think it should be A, why do you think it is B?” Alternatively, he would explain what he believed the correct answer should be: “No. X means [explanation] and Y means [explanation]. If it is Y, then it should include [A element] as shown in the definition.” When the AI insisted on its answer, Daniel uploaded a relevant source as evidence, prompting the AI to reconsider: “Look, this is what it says.” Daniel noted that AI would acknowledge its mistake when it realized it was wrong; if the AI maintained its stance, it would explain its reasoning in greater detail, which he would then carefully review to consider its reasoning. As he stated, “This process allows me to engage deeply with GPT, evaluating its outputs, my reasoning, and external sources.”

In this process, Daniel treated AI less like a mechanical system that passively carries out tasks but more like an active participant by putting significant effort into the process he described as “teaching AI.” By questioning, presenting counterarguments, and referencing external sources, Daniel prompted the AI to reconsider its stance, engaging in a process that mirrored teaching human thinking. Daniel’s approach was not teacher-centered but Socratic—an iterative and dialogic

dynamic that went beyond simply correcting student mistakes and showing the right answers. His openness to understanding the reasoning behind AI's responses also fostered an interaction where the human and AI collaboratively adapt and evaluate different perspectives.

Daniel's use of AI was shaped by various design, support, and social elements. His beliefs in ChatGPT's capabilities were based on his understanding of AI's design. As he noted, "because its training data has a default understanding of the topic," it needs specific contextual information to override its default, generic answers. Thus he always provided contextually rich prompts to anchor AI's analytical abilities in the specific topic he was writing about. As he stated: "If you ask GPT to find literature for you, it's very unreliable. But if you feed it the materials and ask it to dig deeper, it can be more reliable. You need to feed the content first, and then it can effectively analyze and process the information."

Apart from building connections between AI and other non-human resources such as academic articles as a distinct way of managing his learning, peer and teacher support was also a crucial support element in helping him leverage AI resources. Over the span of the study, Daniel expanded his use of AI from only assisting with writing to utilizing it across all stages of his research project. He recalled the first time he used AI to locate suitable theoretical frameworks, as he lacked the disciplinary knowledge needed to conduct research for a course outside his field:

I didn't initially think of using ChatGPT to find the theoretical framework because I wasn't familiar with X [field name] theories. I had no idea where to start. Then, a friend of mine, who's also a graduate student at my school, suggested that I feed all my results to GPT and see if it could help. So I tried it, and it turned out to be quite useful.

From the list of options provided by AI, Daniel selected two and continued exploring them by interacting with AI and searching for additional academic sources in which the theory was used. He then scheduled a meeting with the professor to finalize his choice. Reflecting on his learning, he said, "I didn't initially understand the framework, but after going through this process, I finally understand what the theoretical framework is used for."

Even though Daniel claimed that he learnt a lot because of his engagement with AI, it was not without ethical concerns. He admitted that despite the professor's "no ChatGPT allowed" policy, he used it without "feeling guilty," as he believed that he did not use it "to do things I shouldn't be doing," which, to him, meant copying others' work and creating unoriginal products: "Since the content is originally mine and I only use AI for revisions, I don't consider it plagiarism. I think using AI to make my writing clearer actually benefits the reader, making it easier for them to understand." He viewed the professor's policy as "old-fashioned" and further justified:

In today's society, we can't go back to the way things were as the professors wanted. I believe that instead of banning AI, teachers should teach students how to use it to enhance their efficiency because we live in an era with an overwhelming amount of information. Even if students copy directly, it should be the teacher's responsibility. It's the teacher's responsibility to guide the students. The concept of authorship has become quite blurred in this age, and it's important to adapt to this change.

Daniel's employment of AI resources also depends on his evaluation of the nature of the task and his purpose of learning in a specific context. He differentiates the depth of his critical engagement with AI, contingent on the significance he personally attributes to a task: "If the task is not high-priority, like writing an annotated bibliography, I'll usually glance over the changes GPT made, and if everything looks fine, I'll submit it. It saves a lot of time." For tasks he deemed more important, Daniel engaged in a highly patient, dialogical inquiry with AI, meticulously working with it to negotiate and co-construct meaning. This differentiated approach reflects his view of human cognition and AI not as separate or hierarchical, but collaborative and interrelated. In other words, AI was not treated as an external tool for executing the human will; rather, it became an integral part

of both his language repertoire that was orchestratable into meaning-making, and at the same time, a medium and a process for facilitating and interrogating such meaning-making processes.

Alex

Despite the wide range of AI-assisted writing tasks Alex engaged in across his academic work, language “polishing” emerged as his primary motivation for using ChatGPT—a theme consistently highlighted both in the interview and his AI prompts. Prompts like “Is there any grammatical issues with the sentences?,” “Polish the following sentences,” “Polish and enrich the following paragraph,” “Enhance and polish the following sentences,” and “Polish the following review comments” appeared repeatedly in his AI chat history. Alex used ChatGPT to polish his research papers, professional emails, responses to reviewers, review comments he gave to others, and his social media posts promoting his work. This clear, yet broad goal setting characterized Alex’s overall use of AI. As he exemplified:

I write a passage myself and give it a command, like asking it to polish these sentences. Then it will generate a polished version of the sentences, and I’ll review it from start to finish to see if there are any issues, mainly logical issues. If there are, I’ll make adjustments. If not, I’ll use the polished sentences as my final version.

Alex’s use of the word “command” reflects his perception of AI as a passive tool that operates, and perhaps should always operate, under the user’s control. His AI logs further revealed that much like his goal setting, his approach to monitoring, evaluating, and adapting AI usage also followed a consistent pattern—generic and linear in nature. When dissatisfied with the AI’s edits, he often re-entered the AI-generated version back into the system, using the same generic prompt—“enhance and polish the following sentences”—repeatedly until it achieved a satisfactory result. Occasionally, Alex would adjust his prompts to include a little more contextual or content-specific information, such as: “Enhance and polish the following sentences to explain how to select important variables based on X model.” Even for tasks that might require a different tone or register, such as emails or social media posts, he relied on the same prompts.

Alex’s ethos of using AI was shaped, in part, by his (lack of) understanding of the technology’s design elements. As he said: “Although I use it frequently, I think my understanding of it is still just on the surface level. I don’t have much knowledge of its internal logic or how it generates things—those might be more related to computer science.” However, what perhaps more deeply influenced his use of AI was his discipline-based view of what constitutes good writing, especially for L2 writers. As he stated:

I feel that for writers using English as a second language, the most important use of ChatGPT is still article polishing, to avoid grammatical errors. This is because grammatical accuracy is crucial. In [his field] writing, as long as the meaning is clearly and concisely expressed, even using short sentences is sufficient. This differs from other types of writing which requires a more complex style. Therefore, the main fear for me as a non-native writer is making grammatical mistakes, which is why I primarily use ChatGPT for this purpose.

Alex’s pursuit of grammatical accuracy was rooted in his belief that “native-speaker level fluency” is the golden standard for writing: “My writing definitely had that Chinglish feeling during my first year or two studying in the US. In recent years, it’s getting a bit better, especially after ChatGPT came along, my writing feels more like a native speaker.” Alex emphasized the emotional benefits as a result of using AI, describing it as providing a sense of “security,” making the writing process “less of a struggle,” and “not the headache it used to be.” This extra scrutiny and awareness of language mechanics, along with a pre-conceived notion about L2 writing, also surfaced in his academic review work of other L2 writers. He admitted that even in double-blind reviews, he could

immediately tell if the author was Chinese based on the language, thus impacting how he approached the review:

When I knew the author was Chinese at first glance, I would immediately wonder whether their writing or expression had any grammatical errors. I would pay extra attention [to language]. And if the writing isn't very smooth, the first feedback I usually give is to suggest proofreading the whole paper.

Alex regarded his use of AI “without ethical concerns.” When submitting his review comments, he responded “no” to journal systems’ inquiry about whether GenAI tools had been used to generate feedback. In Alex’s view, using AI for “language polishing” did not constitute “using AI to generate feedback,” thus he saw no need to disclose his AI usage. As an experienced writer and reviewer, Alex navigated these two perspectives fluidly, taking into consideration how using AI in his writing could influence reviewers’ judgment. Ultimately, in Alex’s practice, GenAI served to eradicate grammatical errors and neutralize written accents, allowing his writing to more closely approximate that of a native speaker, which he perceived as desired in his discipline. This alleviated much of the anxiety he previously experienced with L2 academic writing, enabling him to conform to the disciplinary norms of language accuracy that he valued.

Discussion

Differing approaches and positionalities toward AI in writing

The three cases show a spectrum of self-directed AI use in academic writing, all related to the participants’ concerns as multi-lingual writers. While they actively monitored their AI-assisted writing process—planning, evaluating, and adapting the use of AI—their approaches varied significantly due to their differing understandings of AI’s design and their positionalities (C. Wang and Wang 2025) in relation to AI. One notable distinction is the *prescriptive* versus *dialogic* uses of AI as a language resource. A prescriptive approach, as shown in Alex’s case, mainly treats AI as an editing tool that follows the user’s command to perform linguistic tasks, identify issues, and fix the text. This positionality assumes the writer’s full control over the text, rejecting AI’s agency and its potential discursive role in participating in meaning construction. In this way, Alex positioned AI as a mechanical, closed system of words governed by grammatical rules and algorithms, allowing it to mechanize and standardize a multi-lingual writer’s text according to pre-set rules that perfect grammar. While Alex perceived himself as retaining full control over the text by denying AI’s agentic role, this approach dehumanizes writing by pushing it toward AI-driven standardization. In contrast, Mei and Daniel demonstrated a more dialogic use of AI, positioning it as a heuristic repertoire. Mei, for instance, treated AI as an interactive and interpretive audience—a “social body” (Anderson 2023) materialized in words to collaboratively interrogate the clarity of her writing. By positioning it as a social entity rather than an inanimate tool, her recognition of AI’s agency also accentuates the social nature of writing. Similarly, Daniel’s heuristic process with AI to negotiate meaning shows a more post-human orientation in which AI embodies part of Daniel’s distributed cognition that builds dialogue between his various linguistic and thinking resources, human and non-human. Pennycook (2018) suggested, this orientation “step[s] out of the humanist constructs of the individual and the community and look instead at the notion of distributed language and spatial repertoires” (p. 445). Daniel’s dialogic approach positions AI not as a tool or a closed system, but as fluid semiotic resources actively participating in meaning-making instead of remaining static as words, rules, and systems. Daniel de-centers the human as the only rhetorical agent that dictates meaning and treats meaning as emergent between human-AI intra-actions (Z. Wang and Wang 2025). The distributed cognition and agency unsettle anthropocentric boundaries in semiosis, embracing the fluidity of human-AI assemblage as a contribution to his academic literacy practices.

The participants' differing positionalities toward AI are not by chance, aligned with the perceived role of language and literacy in their academic work, grounded in their writerly *habitus* (Bourdieu 1971) sedimented through their multi-lingual academic writing experiences within the contextual relationships of their disciplines. Valuing the author's distinct voice in humanities writing, Mei meticulously scrutinized AI's language inputs and carefully attended to its diction and register. Mei's approach also resonates with the humanities' interpretive tradition toward meaning and text as not merely descriptive but also constructive. STEM scholar Alex treated both AI and text as a tool/vehicle that carries pre-determined meanings by the writer. His focus on using AI to achieve linguistic accuracy and correctness assumes a reification of a functionalist perspective toward language as a carrier of scientific reasoning, which is best transmitted through standardized linguistic forms. Accented L2 writing and deviations from standardized expressions can introduce ambiguities and confusion that undermine scientific understanding. While Alex's use of AI can be proper given his understanding of the rhetorical context within his discipline, it raises important questions about its broader applicability for other multi-lingual writers. While one perspective may see this use of AI as "promoting equity" for multi-lingual writers (Giglio and Costa 2023), it risks perpetuating native speakerism and reinforcing standardized language ideologies that have long dominated academic writing and publishing, further marginalizing non-Western rhetorics (Wang and Wang 2025).

Authorship as distributed practice in AI-mediated writing

Regardless of a prescriptive or a dialogic approach to AI in writing, one cannot deny the intertextual nature of what emerges from the interaction between human and AI (e.g. Pecorari 2023; Tang 2025), prompting important reconsiderations of the relationship between text and authorship. AI destabilizes authorialism, which has long been challenged by post-structuralist thinkers. The notion of a singular, authoritative author was further dismantled when the self-directed users adapted AI inputs through iterations—not only is it hard to trace which part of the text is human or machine, but also the AI input itself is untraceable, as it was sourced from countless other human texts. This entanglement raises ontological questions about authorship. Enlightenment individualism romanticized the author as an autonomous, original genius (Craig and Kerr 2021). The privatization of authorship was further reinforced by capitalist-driven teleologies that commodify creative labor (Barthes 1977). These romantic and utilitarian lenses reduce authorship to a fixed origin, a static and isolated construct, and an individualized form of ownership, neglecting its circulation through discourse, meaning, and intertextuality (e.g. Foucault 1984).

Craig and Kerr (2021) propose a de-romanitized, relational view of authorship—"a dialogic and communicative act that is inherently social, with the cultivation of selfhood and social relations as the entire point of the practice" (p. 31). This relational approach shifts the focus from an individualistic notion of authorship to one that acknowledges originality as historically and socially embedded in one's relations with the self and others. Taking this idea further, we argue that engagements with AI can serve as a means of creating relationships through words that carry linguistic, historical, and social traces. Though words are meaningless to AI, once awakened by the writer in their dialogic relation with other texts, readers, and writers, they gain the potential to transcend traditions and existing relationships. In this sense, positioning oneself within a spatial ecology in which AI mediates meaning-making creates new possibilities for authoring and emergent textualities.

Derrida (1978) unveils how meaning is endlessly deferred and constructed rather than present and given, undermining the author as a sovereign owner and empowering the text to be multi-vocal. From this post-structuralist orientation, texts—human, AI, or any hybrid format of the two—are in a constant state of becoming. The meaning emerging from human-AI inter-actions remains in flux as multi-lingual writers engage in decontextualizing and recontextualizing AI outputs in their writing process. Thus, authorship is better understood as the recognition of authoring as an evolving process of entextualization, where writers' spatial repertoires—both human and non-human—are intricately assembled through a broader network of relationality and a

dialectical process of being and becoming. Spatializing and entextualizing various semiotic resources with a readily negotiable disposition, as shown in the three cases, necessitates reconsidering authorship as a distributed practice (Canagarajah 2018). Such a distributed orientation moves beyond delimiting authorship as a fixed, centralized attribute toward a nexus of relations, in which AI and other semiotic agents partake in the writer's emergent spatial repertoires as well as the ongoing becoming of meaning. Nevertheless, this is not to suggest that AI can be regarded as an author, as AI does not *author* in the socially situated and relational way that humans do. To frame AI as an author falls into the trap of romanticizing authorship, as Craig and Kerr (2021) argued.

Beyond the learning-bypassing dichotomy

What is perhaps further disrupted, as shown in the three cases, is the relationship between learners, learning, and learning materials. GenAI offered unique affordances for participants to self-direct their learning about writing, enabling them to selectively and strategically engage with different components of the writing process and redefine the nature of learning entailed. As seen in Mei's and Daniel's cases, SDL with AI demands strong motivation to self-monitor and manage one's learning, along with deep cognitive and metacognitive engagement that involves critical and reflective thinking about AI's role in the process. Yet Alex's use of AI may resonate with common concerns, such as that AI may be used to "avoid education" (Gefen and Arinze 2023) and that "the foundational writing skills required to use AI effectively and the actual use of AI-assisted writing can be in contradiction to each other" (Warschauer *et al.* 2023). These concerns frame writing development and AI skills as oppositional, if not at least separate, creating an unproductive division given the increasingly self-directed use of AI in writing and language learning. Such framing also falls into the trap of a structuralist view of competence which privileges the grammar and mind over other bodily and sociomaterial processes in the spatial ecology (Canagarajah 2018; Wang and Canagarajah 2024). We contend that recognizing AI use as an integral component of (critical) rhetorical and digital literacy is imperative (Darvin 2025), so that emergent forms of SDL can be leveraged for literacy development rather than being dismissed. Both Mei and Daniel exemplified this: they ultimately developed strong convictions about the value of their interaction with AI as intellectually worthwhile. Mei developed a clearer sense of her own ethics, viewing AI as a legitimate part of her intellectual work rather than a form of plagiarism. Daniel, on the other hand, questioned his professor's policy, arguing that it no longer adapted to the evolving concept of authorship today. However, challenges arise to render this learning visible and accessible, as shown in the significant and nuanced differences in how the three writers used AI.

Stanton (2023) noted that many academics focus on preventing plagiarism and limiting AI, but this overlooks the more critical need for developing new ethical frameworks. At the heart of why using AI can be easily regarded as problematic and stigmatized lies the conventional understanding of the textual-authorial relationship under which the learner-writer identity is defined. The participants in the study kept their AI usage confidential, even when disclosure was required, which shows the failure of the current AI policies to address such ethical complexities. One reason for withholding the information is their fear of ambiguous or negative connotations and judgment associated with AI use in academic writing, fostered by a larger discourse that frames AI as the chief culprit in a new literacy crisis. In this sense, AI becomes a social shaming technology that devalues multi-lingual writers' SDL, which risks reinforcing the long-standing deficit view on multi-lingual writers' language abilities and their credibility. Hence, beyond building the myriads of ethics around AI, morally and practically (for instance, see O'Regan and Ferri 2024) for the social goods, we should also be cautious of the consequences of ethical judgments when an L2 learner confronts the evolving social anchoring of ethics that possibly devalues their ethos. However, we do recognize that some of the participants' usage of AI can raise critical ethical concerns that necessitate further discussion (e.g. feeding AI with copyrighted materials).

Conclusion

This study explores the self-directed use of AI and the learning possibilities it presents, particularly within the underexplored context of advanced multi-lingual writers' scholarly writing practices. The findings challenge two prevailing assumptions about GenAI in learning: first, that GenAI allows one to bypass learning and cognitive engagement by producing seemingly correct answers; second, that while GenAI may support undergraduate learners, it is not suitable for advanced learners (Gefen and Arinze 2023). Contrary to these views, we found that advanced, experienced L2 writers deeply engaged with GenAI to seek meaningful learning and to address their L2-specific writing challenges. We found that their approaches (e.g. prescriptive vs dialogic) and positionalities (e.g. tool vs participant) varied significantly, showing the potential of engaging with AI to transform academic writing and influence existing inequalities for multi-lingual writers both in productive and disruptive ways. These findings show how the intertextuality involved in students' SDL process of writing with AI disrupts traditional notions of authorship, text, writer, learner, and learning. We advocate for new ways of understanding these disruptions through a post-structuralist view on language and writing practices beyond the human-AI, writing-technology, and learning-bypassing divides. Moving beyond the current counterproductive discourses that reinforce these dichotomous thinking is imperative, as they risk further disadvantaging multi-lingual writers. We advocate for collectively deconstructing and reconstructing the social body of AI, to engage with it in ways that foster writerly virtues—through their voice, autonomy, confidence, and positioning (as cited in Daniel et al. 2023)—in the post-digital age. GenAI places us at a pivotal moment to address these long-standing challenges in our education and our historical relationship with technologies.

Conflict of interest

The authors declare that they have no known competing financial interests or personal relationships that could influence this review.

Funding

None declared.

Notes on contributors

Chaoran Wang, chaowang@colby.edu, Colby College. Chaoran is Multilingual Writing Specialist and Assistant Professor of Writing at Colby College. Her interdisciplinary research agenda examines the issues of literacy development of multi-lingual students and technology enhanced language learning through the intersecting perspectives of writing studies, applied linguistics, and educational technologies.

Wei Xu, weixu@niu.edu, is Assistant Professor of rhetoric and writing studies, with a specialization in second language writing, in the English Department at Northern Illinois University. Her research interests revolve around multi-lingual writing, rhetorical genre studies, and technology-assisted writing. Wei's work appears in peer-reviewed journals such as *Journal of Second Language Writing*, *Computers and Composition*, and *Applied Linguistics*.

Xiao Tan, xiao.tan@usu.edu, Utah State University. Xiao Tan is Assistant Professor of English at Utah State University. She publishes on multi-modal writing and second language writing in journals such as *Computers and Composition* and the *Journal of Second Language Writing*.

References

- Anderson, S. S. (2023) "Places to Stand": Multiple Metaphors for Framing ChatGPT's Corpus', *Computers and Composition*, 68: 102778. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.compcom.2023.102778>

- Barthes, R. (1977) 'The Death of the Author', in R. Barthes (ed.) *Image Music Text*, pp. 142–54. London: Fontana Press.
- Bourdieu, P. (1971) 'Intellectual Field and Creative Project', in M. F. D. Young (ed.) *Knowledge and Control: New Directions for the Sociology of Education*, pp. 161–88. London, UK: Collier-Macmillan.
- Canagarajah, S. (2018) 'Translingual Practice as Spatial Repertoires: Expanding the Paradigm Beyond Structuralist Orientations', *Applied Linguistics*, 39: 31–54. <https://doi.org/10.1093/applin/amx041>
- Canagarajah, S. (2023) 'Decolonization as Pedagogy: A Praxis of 'Becoming' in ELT', *ELT Journal*, 77: 283–93. <https://doi.org/10.1093/elt/ccad017>
- Cave, S., and Dihal, K. (2020) 'The Whiteness of AI', *Philosophy & Technology*, 33: 685–703. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s13347-020-00415-6>
- Conroy, G. (2023) 'How ChatGPT and Other AI Tools Could Disrupt Scientific Publishing', *Nature*, 622: 234–6. <https://doi.org/10.1038/d41586-023-03144-w>
- Craig, C., and Kerr, I. (2021) 'The Death of the AI Author', *Ottawa Law Review*, 52: 33–86. <https://doi.org/10.4337/9781800887305.00014>
- Daniel, S. et al. (2023) 'Cultivating Writerly Virtues: Critical Human Elements of Multimodal Writing in the age of Artificial Intelligence', *Journal of Adolescent & Adult Literacy*, 67:32–8. <https://doi.org/10.1002/jaal.1298>
- Darvin, R. (2025) 'The Need for Critical Digital Literacies in Generative AI-Mediated L2 Writing', *Journal of Second Language Writing*, 67: 101186. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.jslw.2025.101186>
- Derrida, J. (1978) *Writing and Difference*. London: Routledge.
- Dovchin, S. (2025) 'Artificial Intelligence in Applied Linguistics: A Double-Edged Sword', *Australian Review of Applied Linguistics*, 47: 410–7. <https://doi.org/10.1075/aral.24145.dov>
- Floridi, L. (2023) 'AI as Agency Without Intelligence: On ChatGPT, Large Language Models, and Other Generative Models', *Philosophy & Technology*, 36: 15. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s13347-023-00621-y>
- Foucault, M. (1984) 'What is an Author?', in P. Rabinow (ed.) *Foucault Reader*, pp. 101–20. New York: Pantheon Books. (Original work published 1969).
- Freire, P. (1970) *Pedagogy of the Oppressed*. (M. B. Ramos, Trans.). New York: Continuum. (Original work published 1968).
- Garrison, D. R. (1997) 'Self-directed Learning: Toward a Comprehensive Model', *Adult Education Quarterly*, 48: 18–33. <https://doi.org/10.1177/074171369704800103>
- Gefen, D., and Arinze, O. (2023) 'ChatGPT and Usurping Academic Authority', *Journal of Information Technology Case and Application Research*, 25: 3–9. <https://doi.org/10.1080/15228053.2023.2186629>
- Giglio, A., and Costa, M. (2023) 'The use of Artificial Intelligence to Improve the Scientific Writing of non-Native English Speakers', *Revista da Associação Médica Brasileira*, 69: e20230560. <https://doi.org/10.1590/1806-9282.20230560>
- Hwang, S. I. et al. (2023) 'Is ChatGPT a "Fire of prometheus" for non-Native English-Speaking Researchers in Academic Writing?', *Korean Journal of Radiology*, 24: 952–9. <https://doi.org/10.3348/kjr.2023.0773>
- Khalifa, M., and Albadawy, M. (2024) 'Using Artificial Intelligence in Academic Writing and Research: An Essential Productivity Tool', *Computer Methods and Programs in Biomedicine Update*, 5: 100145. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.cmpbup.2024.100145>
- Kim, J. J. H. et al. (2024) 'GAI can Fabricate Advanced Scientific Visualizations: Ethical Implications and Strategic Mitigation Framework', *AI and Ethics*: 1–13. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s43681-024-00439-0>
- Kuteeva, M., and Andersson, M. (2024) 'Diversity and Standards in Writing for Publication in the age of AI—Between a Rock and a Hard Place', *Applied Linguistics*, 45: 561–7. <https://doi.org/10.1093/applin/amae025>
- Li, B. et al. (2024) 'Reconceptualizing Self-Directed Learning in the Era of Generative AI: An Exploratory Analysis of Language Learning', *IEEE Transactions on Learning Technologies*, 17: 1489–503. <https://doi.org/10.1109/TLT.2024.3386098>
- Li, B. et al. (2025) 'Development and Validation of the PA-SDA Scale: Measuring Personal Attributes in AI-Integrated Self-Directed Language Learning', *System*, 133: 103793. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.system.2025.103793>

- Li, Z., and Bonk, C. J. (2023) 'Self-directed Language Learning with Duolingo in an out-of-Class Context', *Computer Assisted Language Learning*, 38: 569–91. <https://doi.org/10.1080/09588221.2023.2206874>
- Liang, W. et al. (2023) 'GPT detectors are Biased Against non-Native English Writers', *Patterns*, 4: 100779. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.patter.2023.100779>
- Negretti, R., and Khuder, B. (2023) 'Case Studies', in M. Kessler, and C. Polio (eds) *Conducting Genre-Based Research in Applied Linguistics: A Methodological Guide*, 1st edn, pp. 13–34. New York: Routledge.
- Nordling, L. (2023) 'How ChatGPT is Transforming the Postdoc Experience', *Nature*, 622: 655–7. <https://doi.org/10.1038/d41586-023-03235-8>
- O'Regan, J. P., and Ferri, G. (2024) 'Artificial Intelligence and Depth Ontology: Implications for Intercultural Ethics', *Applied Linguistics Review*, 16: 797–807. <https://doi.org/10.1515/applirev-2024-0189>
- Ou, A. W., Stöhr, C., and Malmström, H. (2024) 'Academic Communication with AI-Powered Language Tools in Higher Education: From a Post-Humanist Perspective', *System*, 121: 103225. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.system.2024.103225>
- Pecorari, D. (2023) 'Generative AI: Same Same but Different?', *Journal of Second Language Writing*, 62: 101067. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.jslw.2023.101067>
- Pecorari, D., and Petrić, B. (2014) 'Plagiarism in Second-Language Writing', *Language Teaching*, 47: 269–302. <https://doi.org/10.1017/S0261444814000056>
- Pennycook, A. (2018) 'Posthumanist Applied Linguistics', *Applied Linguistics*, 39: 445–61. <https://doi.org/10.1093/applin/amw016>
- Prior, P. (1995) 'Tracing Authoritative and Internally Persuasive Discourses: A Case Study of Response, Revision, and Disciplinary Enculturation', *Research in the Teaching of English*, 29: 288–325. <https://doi.org/10.58680/rte199515343>
- Prior, P. (2004) 'Tracing Process: How Texts come into Being', in C. Bazerman, and P. Prior (eds.) *What Writing Does and how it Does it: An introduction to Analyzing Texts and Textual Practices*, pp. 167–200. Lawrence Erlbaum.
- Song, L., and Hill, J. (2007) 'A Conceptual Model for Understanding Self-Directed Learning in Online Environments', *Journal of Interactive Online Learning*, 6: 27–42. <https://www.ncolr.org/jiol/issues/pdf/6.1.3.pdf>
- Stanton, C. (2023) 'A dis-Facilitated Call for More Writing Studies in the new AI Landscape; or, Finding our Place among the Chatbots', *Composition Studies*, 51: 182–6. <https://compstudiesjournal.com/wpcontent/uploads/2023/06/stanton.pdf>
- Tan, X., Wang, C., and Xu, W. (2025) 'To Disclose or not to Disclose: Exploring the Risk of Being Transparent About GAI use in Second Language Writing', *Applied Linguistics*: amae092. <https://doi.org/10.1093/applin/amae092>
- Tang, K.-S. (2025) 'AI-textuality: Expanding Intertextuality to Theorize Human-AI Interaction with Generative Artificial Intelligence', *Applied Linguistics*: amaf016. <https://doi.org/10.1093/applin/amaf016>
- Wang C. (2024) Exploring Students' Generative AI-Assisted Writing Processes: Perceptions and Experiences from Native and Nonnative English Speakers. *Technology, Knowledge and Learning*, 30: 1–22. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s10758-024-09744-3>
- Wang, C., and Canagarajah, S. (2024) 'Postdigital Ethnography in Applied Linguistics: Beyond the Online and Offline in Language Learning', *Research Methods in Applied Linguistics*, 3: 100111. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.rmal.2024.100111>
- Wang, C., Li, Z., and Bonk, C. (2024) 'Understanding Self-Directed Learning in AI-Assisted Writing: A Mixed Methods Study of Postsecondary Learners', *Computers and Education: Artificial Intelligence*, 6: 100247. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.caeai.2024.100247>
- Wang, C., and Wang, Z. (2025) 'Investigating L2 Writers' Critical AI Literacy in AI-Assisted Writing: An APSE Model', *Journal of Second Language Writing*, 67: 101187. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.jslw.2025.101187>

- Wang, Z., and Wang, C. (2025) 'A Posthumanist Approach to AI Literacy', *Computers and Composition*, 76: 102933. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.compcom.2025.102933>
- Warschauer, M. et al. (2023) 'The Affordances and Contradictions of AI-Generated Text for Writers of English as a Second or Foreign Language', *Journal of Second Language Writing*, 62: 101071. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.jslw.2023.101071>